



RKDF UNIVERSITY, BHOPAL

Bachelor of Arts (B.A.)

ODL SCHEME

SUBJECT- ENGLISH LITERATURE

Course	Category	Subject	Subject Code
B.A.	Major	STUDY OF DRAMA	BA-EN101
Total Credit: 6		Max.Marks:100 (Internal:40+External:60)	

Units	Topic	Duration (In Hours)	Marks
I	Classical Drama 1.1 Sophocles Oedipus Rex-story Keywords : <i>Sanskrit theatre Rasa theory classical tragedy. Greek theatre . Trilogy Plot structure. Oedipus Complex Electra Complex Epic theatre</i>	15	25
II	Renaissance Drama 2.1 Christopher Marlow Dr. Faustus 2.2 William Shakespeare Tragedy in <i>The Merchant of Venice</i> Keywords : <i>Renaissance, Characteristics of heterary renaissance, Elicabethan drama. Elicabethan comedy Morality plays, Elicabethan Tragedy Catharsis</i>	18	25
III	Restoration Drama 3.1 John Dryden- All for Love Keywords : <i>Restoration drama, Restoration comedy. Comedy of manners, Heroic couplet. Restoration of monarchy. Rejection of puritanism. Satire Faith and Politics</i>	12	25
IV	Indian Drama 4.1 GirishKarnadHayavadana Keywords : <i>Indian English Drama, Indian society, Morality Modern Indian theatre Regional drama Gender concern, Mythical and social elements</i>	15	25

Part- C Learning Resource

Text Books, Reference Books, Other Resources

Suggested Readings:

Boulton, Marjorie. The Anatomy of Drama London : Routledge and Kegan Paul Ltd. 1959

Charlton, H.B. Shakespearean Comedy: Routledge Kegan and Paul, 1966

Karnad, Girish Girish Karnad : Three Plays New Delhi OUP. 2002

Nicoll, Allardyce British Drama Delhi Doaba House

Stanivukovic, Goran, and John Cameron Tragedies of the English Renaissance An Introduction (Renaissance Dramas and Dramatists) Is ed. Edinburgh University Press 2018

Straub, Kristina, et al The Routledge Anthology of Restoration and Eighteenth – Century Drama Isted, Routledge. 2017

Suggested digital platforms weblinks :

“Restoration Drama England ! Encyclopedia Com Encyclopedia com 2010

[WWW encyclopedia com/humanities/culture-magazines/restoration-drama-england](http://www.encyclopedia.com/humanities/culture-magazines/restoration-drama-england)

Wikipedia contributors “English Drama” Wikipedia 26 Mar 2021

En Wikipedia org/wiki/English_drama

Renaissance Drama

[https // english summary com/restoration-drama/#gsc tab=0](https://englishsummary.com/restoration-drama/#gsc.tab=0)

Shakespeare Sonnets Summary & Analysis 154 sonnets with translation

[https://shakespearequotesand plays. Com/ Shakespeare-sonnets/](https://shakespearequotesandplays.com/shakespeare-sonnets/)

Abhijnanashakuntala work by Kalidasa

[https://www britannica com/topic/Abhijnanashakuntala](https://www.britannica.com/topic/Abhijnanashakuntala)

Oedipus Rex Greek mythology

[https://www britannica com/topic/Oedipus-Greek-mythology](https://www.britannica.com/topic/Oedipus-Greek-mythology)

Suggested equivalent online courses :

[https// www classcentral .com/course/modpo-356](https://www.classcentral.com/course/modpo-356) Modern Drama-Free online Drama Course

Unit I

The Plot of Oedipus the King

By leaving his home in Corinth, Oedipus thinks he has escaped a terrible prophecy that says that he will kill his father and marry his mother. Oedipus has defeated the riddling Sphinx, saved the seven-gated city of Thebes, and married the queen Jocasta. (Her first husband, Laius, had been killed.) They have four children, Eteocles, Polynices, Antigone, and Ismene, and they rule in peace. But a mysterious plague has recently afflicted the city, bringing death to the people, livestock, and crops. Oedipus has sent Creon to Delphi to find out from the oracle there what to do.

In the play:

A priest and his followers ask Oedipus to find a way to save them from the plague. Creon returns and reports that they need to find the murderer of Laius, the former king. He summons Tiresias, the famous seer, to tell what he knows. At first Tiresias refuses to speak, but when pressed, he tells Oedipus that the murderer he seeks is Oedipus himself. The king and the chorus refuse to believe the prophecy, and Oedipus accuses Tiresias and Creon of plots and corruption. Jocasta intervenes and tells Oedipus not to worry. Oedipus starts to ask questions about Laius's death, and the circumstances begin to sound familiar. Jocasta realizes the truth—that Oedipus is her son as well as her husband—and tells Oedipus to stop the interrogations. He doesn't listen, and an eyewitness, the Herdsman who rescued him when he was an infant, confirms that he was Laius and Jocasta's child, and that Oedipus killed Laius. A Servant reports the suicide of Jocasta, and Oedipus emerges from the house having blinded himself. He seeks exile and mourns with his daughters. Creon takes over. The plot of Sophocles' great tragedy *Oedipus the King* (sometimes known as *Oedipus Rex* or *Oedipus Tyrannos*) has long been admired. In his *Poetics*, Aristotle held it up as an exemplary Greek tragedy. Samuel Taylor Coleridge called it one of the three perfect plots in all of literature (the other two being Ben Jonson's *The Alchemist* and Henry Fielding's *Tom Jones*). *Oedipus the King* might also be called the first detective story in Western literature.

Yet how well do we know Sophocles' play? And what does a closer analysis of its plot features and themes reveal?

Michael Patterson calls Oedipus the King 'a model of analytic plot structure'. So it's worth briefly recounting the plot of Sophocles' play in a short summary. The city of Thebes is in the grip of a terrible plague. The city's king, Oedipus, sends Creon to consult the Delphic oracle, who announces that if the city rids itself of a murderer, the plague will disappear. The murderer in question is the unknown killer of the city's previous king, Laius. Oedipus adopts a sort of detective role, and endeavours to sniff out the murderer. He himself is plagued by another prophecy: that he would one day kill his father and marry his mother. He thinks he's managed to thwart the prophecy by leaving home – and his parents – back in Corinth. On his way from Corinth to Thebes, he had an altercation with a man on the road: neither party would back down to let the other past, and Oedipus ended up killing the man in perhaps Western literature's first instance of road rage. Then Oedipus learns that his 'father' back in Corinth was not his biological parent: he was adopted after his 'real' parents left him for dead on a hillside, and he was rescued by a kindly shepherd who rescued him, took the child in, and raised him as his own. (The name Oedipus is Greek for 'swollen foot', from the chains put through the infant's feet when it was left on the mountain.)

Tiresias the seer then reveals that the man Oedipus killed on the road was Laius – the former king of Thebes and Oedipus's biological father. Laius' widow, Jocasta, is Oedipus' own mother – and the woman Oedipus had married upon his arrival in Thebes. When this terrible truth is revealed, Jocasta hangs herself, and Oedipus puts out his own eyes and leaves Thebes, going into self-imposed exile so he can free the Thebans from the plague.

When in Corinth Oedipus heard the prophecy that he would one day murder his father and marry his mother, and so fled from his presumed parents so as to avoid fulfilling the prophecy. Such an act seems noble and it was jolly bad luck that fate had decreed that

Oedipus would turn out to be a foundling and his real parents were still out there for him to bump into. But what is clever about Sophocles' dramatizing of the myth is the way he introduces little details which reveal Oedipus' character. The clues were already there that Oedipus was actually adopted: when he received the prophecy from the oracle, a drunk told him as much. But because the man was drunk, Oedipus didn't believe him. But, as the Latin phrase has it, *in vino veritas*. Then, it is Oedipus' hubris, his pride, that contributes to the altercation on the road between him and Laius, the man who turns out to be his real father: if Oedipus was less stubborn, he would have played the bigger man and stepped aside to let Laius pass.

What does all this mean, when we stop and analyse it in terms of the interplay between fate and personal actions in *Oedipus the King*? It means that Sophocles was aware of something which governs all our lives. Call it 'karma' if you will, or fate, but it works even if we remove the supernatural framework into which the action of *Oedipus the King* is placed. Our actions have consequences, but that doesn't mean that a particular action will lead to a particular consequence: it means that one action might cause something quite different to happen, which will nevertheless be linked in some way to our lives.

Oedipus kills Laius because he is a stubborn and angry man; in his anger and pride, he allows himself to forget the prophecy (or to believe himself safe if he kills this man who he decides cannot be his father, since he is brought up by the king of Corinth Polybus and to kill another man. Yet works of art are always opening themselves up to new readings which see them reflecting our changing and evolving moral beliefs, and that is perhaps why *Oedipus the King* remains a great play to read, watch, analyse, and discuss. There remains something unsettling about its plot structure and its ambiguous meaning, and that is what lends it its power.

Summary of the Play

Oedipus steps out of the royal palace of Thebes and is greeted by a procession of priests, who are in turn surrounded by the impoverished and sorrowful citizens of Thebes. The citizens carry branches wrapped in wool, which they offer to the gods as gifts. Thebes has been struck by a plague, the citizens are dying, and no one knows how to put an end to it. Oedipus asks a priest why the citizens have gathered around the palace. The priest responds that the city is dying and asks the king to save Thebes. Oedipus replies that he sees and understands the terrible fate of Thebes, and that no one is more sorrowful than he. He has sent Creon, his brother-in-law and fellow ruler, to the Delphic oracle to find out how to stop the plague. Just then, Creon arrives, and Oedipus asks what the oracle has said. Creon asks Oedipus if he wants to hear the news in private, but Oedipus insists that all the citizens hear. Creon then tells what he has learned from the god Apollo, who spoke through the oracle: the murderer of Laius, who ruled Thebes before Oedipus, is in Thebes. He must be driven out in order for the plague to end.

Creon goes on to tell the story of Laius's murder. On their way to consult an oracle, Laius and all but one of his fellow travelers were killed by thieves. Oedipus asks why the Thebans made no attempt to find the murderers, and Creon reminds him that Thebes was then more concerned with the curse of the Sphinx. Hearing this, Oedipus resolves to solve the mystery of Laius's murder.

The Chorus enters, calling on the gods Apollo, Athena, and Artemis to save Thebes. Apparently, it has not heard Creon's news about Laius's murderer. It bemoans the state of Thebes, and finally invokes Dionysus, whose mother was a Theban. Oedipus returns and tells the Chorus that he will end the plague himself. He asks if anyone knows who killed Laius, promising that the informant will be rewarded and the murderer will receive no harsher

punishment than exile. No one responds, and Oedipus furiously curses Laius's murderer and anyone who is protecting him. Oedipus curses himself, proclaiming that should he discover the murderer to be a member of his own family, that person should be struck by the same exile and harsh treatment that he has just wished on the murderer. Oedipus castigates the citizens of Thebes for letting the murderer go unknown so long. The Leader of the Chorus suggests that Oedipus call for Tiresias, a great prophet, and Oedipus responds that he has already done so.

Character Analysis

Sophocles is famous in the Greek dramatic tradition for his innovations in characterization. He added a third actor on stage thereby reducing the role of the chorus in the Greek plays and increasing the scope for greater interaction and conflict among characters. He also developed his characters in greater complexity than seen in earlier plays.

Major Characters on Stage

Oedipus

Oedipus is the King of Thebes and the protagonist of our play. He has come from Corinth to Thebes after solving the riddle of the Sphinx monster and is venerated as the man of great intellect and strength and the saviour of the city. You will be reading about the various aspects of his complex characterization throughout these two lessons on his role as a man, son, father, saviour, survivor, tragic hero (discussed in the next lesson), riddle-solver, etc. but in this section, I wish to briefly discuss the aspects of his naming and his role as a king

Tiresias

Tiresias is the blind prophet of Thebes called upon by Oedipus to reveal the murderer of Laius. He is understood to possess wisdom and more knowledge about contents of Delphic oracle concerning the murderer of Laius and is invited by Creon. He remains tight-lipped in the beginning despite Oedipus' initial requests and threats to him until Oedipus finally

charges him with the conspiracy of Laius' murder along with Creon. An angry dialogue consisting of allegations and counter-allegations ensues between the characters where Tiresias reminds Oedipus that he is equal to him in at least responding to him and he is a servant of Apollo, not Oedipus.

Creon

He is the brother of Jocasta and a politically astute man. When Oedipus, to whom Creon has been a great friend and brother-in-law, charges him with the conspiracy of murder of Laius along with Tiresias, the chorus rebukes him for his wrath and "jumping to conclusions." Creon, on the other hand, behaves sanely while keeping his composure and tries to explain to Oedipus rationally why his accusations, although serious, are untrue. He vouches his loyalty to the city of Thebes and binds himself by an oath that is supported by the chorus. Creon emerges as a sane foil to the insane anger of Oedipus.

Jocasta

She is the wife and mother of Oedipus, sister of Creon and the queen of Thebes. She is the only woman character in the play that has been given a voice. Jocasta-Oedipus relationship is both understood in terms of the mother and the wife as she behaves with the concern for the public image and for the survival of her private life. Jocasta had been the wife of Laius and she was a participant in abandoning Oedipus as an infant. Jocasta is also the only one who knows about the survivor from the killing of Laius. She had kept the secrets of his details until her husband urges her to present him for investigation.

Jocasta and Oedipus share an incestuous relationship. Although seemingly a happily married pair with four children, they have hidden the most significant details or truths from each other which has continued to baffle audiences and scholars alike as Newton discusses in his essay. It is only when Oedipus starts uncovering the details of the murder of Laius that

Jocasta reveals to him about the abandonment of their infant and Oedipus discloses the oracular knowledge to her.

Unit II

Renaissance Drama

Christopher Marlowe: Dr. Faustus

William Shakespeare Tragedy in The Merchant of Venice

Keywords :Renaissance, Characteristics of heterary renaissance, Elicabethan drama. Elicabethan comedy Morality plays, Elicabethan Tragedy Catharsis

Christopher Marlowe, Doctor Faustus

Introduction

This course is on Christopher Marlowe's famous play *Doctor Faustus*. It considers the play in relation to Marlowe's own reputation as a rule-breaker and outsider and asks whether the play criticises or seeks to arouse audience sympathy for its protagonist, who sells his soul to the

devil in exchange for 24 years of power and pleasure. Is this pioneering drama a medieval morality play or a tragedy?

In this course I will discuss the question of reputation in relation to a literary text, *Doctor Faustus* by Christopher Marlowe, which was written sometime between 1588 and 1592 and was first published in 1604 (the A text). We will start by considering the literary reputation of Marlowe (1564–93), who lived and wrote at the same time as Shakespeare and is probably the most famous of his many gifted fellow writers.

We will then look at *Doctor Faustus*, Marlowe's most well-known play. The main aim being to introduce you to the study of literature at undergraduate level. We will discuss several aspects of the play, and engage in some of the main skills and techniques involved in the analysis and interpretation of literary texts.

Let's begin by looking at the life and reputation of the play's author.

Marlowe's touch was in my *Titus Andronicus*, and my *Henry VI* was a house built on his foundations ... I would give all my plays to come for one of his that will never come.

These lines come from John Madden's 1998 film *Shakespeare in Love*. Shakespeare, played by Joseph Fiennes, has just heard that Marlowe has been stabbed to death in a tavern in Deptford and believes, mistakenly, that he is responsible for his death. Stricken with guilt and grief, he acknowledges the immense artistic debt he owes his great contemporary, without whose works he feels he could never have written two of his own early plays.

This scene from the film gives us a reasonably accurate picture of the kind of reputation that Marlowe now enjoys as a writer: he is seen both as an important dramatist in his own right, and as a pioneer whose achievements on the stage made possible the considerable accomplishments of his successors, most especially the plays of Shakespeare.

What *Shakespeare in Love* only hints at in its mention of Marlowe's sticky end is that he is as famous for his life and death as for his works.

Marlowe's posthumous literary reputation was heavily influenced by several hostile contemporary accounts of his character and beliefs. His fellow playwright Thomas Kyd accused him of holding a variety of 'monstrous opinions', of being 'intemperate' and of having 'a cruel heart' (Maclure, 1979, pp. 35, 33), though it's important to realise that Kyd made these claims under torture. The spy Richard Baines, who had already informed on Marlowe during the counterfeiting affair, submitted a report to the authorities which portrayed him as a scoffer and heretic who, for example, mocked religion as a tool used by the powerful 'to keep men in awe' and said 'Christ was a bastard and his mother dishonest' (ibid., p. 37). Baines also accused Marlowe of what we would call homosexuality (the word did not exist in the sixteenth century, though buggery was punishable by death) when he attributed to him the view that 'all they that love not tobacco and boys were fools' (ibid., p. 37). The puritan Thomas Beard charged Marlowe with 'atheism and impiety', with denying 'God and his son Christ' (ibid., p. 41). He also interpreted Marlowe's violent death as God's judgement upon his sins, or as Beard put it rather more colourfully, as the 'hook the Lord put in the nostrils of this barking dog' (ibid., p. 42). It's only fair to add that Marlowe was also admired and celebrated as a poet and dramatist during and immediately after his lifetime; for example, fellow dramatist George Peele called him 'the Muses' darling' (ibid., p. 39), while another playwright, Thomas Heywood, writing in 1633, described him as 'the best of poets in that age' (Cheney, 2004, p. 3).

Given such spectacular biographical material, it's not surprising that Marlowe the man has always been as famous as Marlowe the writer. Moreover, the correlations between the work and the life (both the facts and the gossip) are undeniably striking: all of Marlowe's dramatic protagonists are in some significant sense rule-breakers, who challenge religious, political or

sexual orthodoxies, much as he was accused of doing. Two of his most well-known heroes, Tamburlaine and Doctor Faustus, share with their creator their rise from low-class origins to fame and success, while another protagonist, King Edward II, is sexually infatuated with his favourite Piers Gaveston.

Marlowe's literary reputation has depended to a considerable extent on how different historical periods have viewed his life and his unconventional protagonists. Those critics in the eighteenth century who had some knowledge of Marlowe were generally scandalised by the biographical accounts that survived and repelled by what they perceived to be the intemperate nature of his protagonists. It was not until the nineteenth century that a more favourable view of Marlowe's artistic accomplishments began to emerge. The establishment of English Studies as a distinct academic discipline in the second half of the nineteenth century brought with it the construction of a canon of great writers and a history of English literature which accorded Marlowe the crucial ground breaking role he plays in *Shakespeare in Love*.

Changing views of the artist consolidated his integration into the literary canon. Viewed in the light of the biographies of romantic poets like Shelley (1792–1822), an avowed atheist, and Byron (1788–1824), surrounded through much of his career by sexual scandal, Marlowe's tumultuous life and early death, along with his sensational plays, began to look less like culpable immorality and more like evidence of poetic genius. As the figure of the artist became increasingly associated with rebellion and excess, so the life and work that once disqualified Marlowe from literary celebrity came virtually to guarantee it.

Doctor Faustus

Critics who have studied Marlowe's work have for the most part been inclined to take on trust the picture of him provided by Kyd, Baines, Beard and others, and to read the plays as statements of the author's own radical beliefs. But there is an obvious problem with this

approach to Marlowe's work: we simply don't know whether these hostile accounts of his opinions are accurate or, as seems likely, deeply compromised by their writers' own motives and circumstances.

Doctor Faustus is the most famous of Marlowe's plays, and its hero, who sells his soul to the devil in return for twenty-four years of power and pleasure, is by far the best known of his rebellious protagonists. Marlowe based the plot of his play on *The History of the Damnable Life and Deserved Death of Doctor John Faustus* (1592), an English translation of a German book (now known as the *Faustbuch*) about an actual historical figure who gained notoriety in early sixteenth-century Germany by dabbling in the occult. This story rapidly became the stuff of legend and, like most legends, it has been subject to numerous retellings, including the two-part play *Faust* (1808; 1832) by the German writer Goethe, the novel *Doctor Faustus* (1948) by Thomas Mann, and Peter Cook's and Dudley Moore's 1967 film *Bedazzled* (remade in 2000), which adapted the legend for comic ends.

Why did Marlowe choose to adapt the Faust legend for the stage? Was the free-thinking dramatist, as numerous critics have speculated, attracted to a story about a man who rebelled so flagrantly against the Christian God? One of the interesting questions to ask about *Doctor Faustus* is whether the play seems to strengthen or undermine the longstanding view of Marlowe as a maverick artist, and we will return to this question at the end of the course.

Reading a Renaissance play

If you have never read a Renaissance play before – and even if you have – you may well find *Doctor Faustus* a challenging read. This is chiefly because, like the plays of Shakespeare, *Doctor Faustus* was written during the historical period known as the Renaissance (or the early modern period), when the vocabulary was significantly different from twenty-first-century English. It is also written largely in blank verse, a term that requires a few words of explanation. Look for a moment at the four opening lines of *Doctor Faustus*:

Not marching now in fields of Trasimene

Where Mars did mate the Carthaginians,

Nor sporting in the dalliance of love

In courts of kings where state is overturned ... (Prologue, ll. 1–4)

If you count the syllables in these lines, you will find that each one contains ten syllables. If you read the lines aloud, you will hear that for the most part every other syllable carries a particularly marked accent:

Not march|ing now | in f|ields | of Tra|simene

Where Mars | did mate | the Car|thagi|nians,

Nor sport|ing in | the dal|liance | of love

In courts| of kings| where state| is o|verturned

The second line doesn't fit all that comfortably into the overall pattern because it feels a bit awkward giving a strong stress to the last syllable of 'Carthaginians'. But we can still say that, roughly speaking, each line of verse has five stressed and five unstressed syllables, and that these are arranged in a fairly regular pattern of unstressed/stressed. In poetry this pattern, or metre, is called iambic pentameter, which is generally thought to be the poetic metre that most closely reproduces the cadence of English speech. This is also *blank* verse because, in addition to being written in iambic pentameter, the lines are unrhymed. Marlowe was known and admired by his contemporaries for the skill with which he used blank verse in his plays.

Don't worry if this discussion of metre is new to you: its purpose is just to make you aware that the play's verse has an underlying rhythm. This rhythm is mainly determined by the metre which, as we have just seen, is more regular at some points than others, but it is also

affected by punctuation, which can slow the verse down (if there are a lot of stops and pauses) or speed it up (if there are few of these).

Everyone has their own way of reading, but I would suggest, especially if this is your first encounter with Renaissance drama, that when reading the play you focus on the story: try to get the gist of what happens, who the main characters are and what they do. Don't worry if you find this hard going or feel that you do not understand it all. Remember that reading early modern English *is* challenging, and that in the second part of this course we will be looking more closely at particular parts of the play.

If you have not already done so, please read *Doctor Faustus* now.

Reading *Doctor Faustus*

Act 1, Scene 1: "Yet art thou still but Faustus, and a man"

The morality play

Before looking at the play's opening scene I should add a brief note on the medieval **morality play**, the type of drama on which Marlowe draws in adapting *The Damnable Life* for the stage. After the Prologue and Faustus's long opening speech, you may have been startled by the appearance of the Good and Evil Angels. Even if you had expected to find supernatural beings in a play about a man who sells his soul to the devil, the Good and Evil Angels may have struck you as strange, perhaps because they are not what we expect characters in literary texts to be like. Their names tell us pretty much everything we need to know about them for, rather than having individualised personalities, they represent abstract moral qualities – in this case, goodness and evil. At this point and throughout the play they are engaged in a struggle for the soul of Faustus, the Good Angel warning him of the danger of arousing ‘God's heavy wrath’ (Act 1, Scene 1, line 74 – displayed as 1.1.74) by practising black magic,

the Evil Angel egging him on by reminding him of the power that necromancy will bring him.

This way of creating characters, or **characterisation**, is typical of morality plays, which are fundamentally religious dramas that enact the conflict between good and evil, each of which is embodied in supernatural figures (like Mephistopheles and Lucifer) or personified abstractions (like the Good and Evil Angels and the Seven Deadly Sins). They are shown fighting for the soul of a central human character who often represents humanity itself, hence the title of one of the best-known morality plays, *Everyman*. The aim of the morality play was primarily didactic; that is, it sought to teach its audience, and to offer moral and spiritual lessons about how to live a good Christian life. In *Doctor Faustus*, this didactic element can be seen most clearly in Marlowe's use of a **Chorus** to present a Prologue and Epilogue that, rather like the Choruses of ancient Greek tragedies, express traditional attitudes and guide the audience's response to the play. (In Greek tragedy the Chorus was a group of people, whereas in *Doctor Faustus* and Elizabethan drama generally, it is one person.) Yet morality plays also sought to entertain their audiences; they are full of clowning and knockabout comedy, just as in *Doctor Faustus*.

Morality plays were prevalent in England during the late Middle Ages, but were still popular when Marlowe was writing. The fact that he turned to the morality play when he came to dramatise *The Damnable Life* raises questions about the **genre** of *Doctor Faustus*: what kind of play is this? Is it essentially a late sixteenth-century morality play, warning its audience of the dire consequences of practising black magic? Or is its attitude to the story it tells more complicated than this? How does the play encourage us to respond to the central character who sells his soul to the devil?

The Chorus, then, is kicking things off by giving us a brief biography of the play's protagonist. I hope you agree that the picture of Faustus it offers us is a mixed one. The Chorus undoubtedly condemns Faustus's study of magic and encourages us to disapprove of it too. But the speech also registers the greatness of a man who, through his own merit, overcame the considerable disadvantage of lowly birth to rise to the pinnacle of his profession.

Let's look a little more closely now at the last eight lines of the Prologue. When the tone of the speech changes in line 20, the Chorus says not just that Faustus is full of intellectual pride and arrogance, but that he is 'swollen' with it. This is easy for us to understand, for we still use the expression 'swollen head' to describe someone who thinks too highly of himself. We also understand that the Chorus is not using the adjective 'swoll'n' literally; it is not that Faustus is actually swollen up, but that he has an inflated opinion of himself. In other words, 'swoll'n' is used in a *figurative* rather than a literal way. **Figurative language** describes one thing by comparing it with something else. The two most well-known types of figurative language are **similes** and **metaphors**. Similes make a direct comparison by using the word 'like' or 'as'. If Marlowe had written 'Till, swoll'n like a balloon with cunning of a self-conceit', he would have made a direct comparison between Faustus's pride and an inflated balloon. But he chose to use not a simile but a metaphor, with the result that rather than being likened to a particular inflated object, pride is identified more broadly with the condition of being swollen.

This metaphor is followed by the lines: 'His waxen wings did mount above his reach, / And melting heavens conspired his overthrow' (ll. 21–2). This is an allusion to the ancient Greek myth of Icarus, who attempted to escape from Crete with a pair of waxen wings, but flew too near the sun and plunged to his death when the sun melted the wax (see Figures 2 and 3). He became the symbol of the 'over reaches', of the man who tries to exceed his own limitations

and comes to grief as a result. Like Icarus, in the Chorus's view, Faustus tried to 'mount above his reach' and was punished for his presumption: 'heavens conspired his overthrow' (l. 22). This is an intriguing twist on the Icarus myth; for whereas Icarus's pride seems to be self-destructive, Faustus's sparks the intervention of a deity who 'conspires' to destroy him.

It is interesting to compare Brueghel's treatment of the myth with that of Marlowe's Chorus and Whitney's emblem. Icarus, just visible in the bottom right of the painting as he sinks to his death in the sea, is unnoticed as the rest of the world goes about its business. The American poet William Carlos Williams (1883–1963) wrote the following poem about Pieter Brueghel's *Landscape with the Fall of Icarus*, (1555):

The Chorus now introduces Faustus, who delivers his first speech of the play. The way the speech is staged and written serves to emphasise Faustus's position as an eminent scholar. It is set in his study, and he is surrounded by books, from which he reads in Latin. The works he consults, written by such great thinkers of classical antiquity as the Greek philosopher Aristotle, the Greek medical authority Galen, and the Roman emperor Justinian, were central texts in the sixteenth-century university curriculum. The first impression the speech gives us, then, is of the breadth of Faustus's learning.

There is no one on stage with Faustus as he delivers these lines, which means that it is a **soliloquy**, a speech in which a dramatic character, alone on stage, expresses his or her thoughts, feelings and motives. The soliloquy is an ideal device for establishing a strong relationship between a character and an audience, for it seems to give us access to that character's mind at work. In Faustus's opening soliloquy, we notice right away that he is addressing himself in the third person – 'Settle thy studies, Faustus, and begin' (l. 1) – which creates the impression that he is talking to himself. We listen as he tries to make up his mind, now that he has been awarded a doctorate in theology, what subject he wants to specialise in. He declares that he will be a 'divine' only in appearance ('in show'), while aiming to achieve

expertise in every academic discipline. Immediately, then, we hear a note of dissatisfaction and restlessness in Faustus's voice; despite his dazzling academic success, he is impatient for more knowledge.

Yet as he runs through the four main academic disciplines he has studied – philosophy, medicine, law and theology – he dismisses each of them as an intellectual dead-end. Faustus feels that he has already achieved everything that the study of philosophy and medicine has to offer. He then rejects the law as suitable only for a ‘mercenary drudge’ (l. 34). For a moment, he returns to divinity as the most worthy profession, but then rejects that as well, as the passages he reads from Jerome's Bible stress only human sinfulness and the damnation that awaits it.

So what is it that Faustus wants that these traditional fields of study fail to supply? When contemplating his own remarkable achievements in medicine, he laments that although he can cure illness, he is unable either to give his patients eternal life or to raise them from the dead: ‘Yet art thou still but Faustus, and a man’ (l. 23). What he wants, then, is to transcend his human limitations, to break through the boundaries that place what he sees as artificial restrictions on human potential. He has gone as far as his human condition will allow him to go, but wants to go further still, which means transforming himself into a ‘mighty god’, ‘a deity’ (ll. 64, 65), a goal he feels only magic will enable him to realise.

When Faustus declares that he wants to achieve something that ‘[s]tretcheth as far as doth the mind of man’ (l. 63), he expresses an intense optimism about human ability that has often been seen as characteristic of the Renaissance, and as the quality that most distinguishes it from the more religious Middle Ages. Historical periods are too complex to be boiled down to a single, defining essence; nor are there clear breaks between them. Nevertheless, there were developments in Europe from the fourteenth to the eighteenth century that, broadly speaking, encouraged a newly secular view of the world: the growth of scientific

investigation into the structure of the universe and the laws of the physical world; the voyages of exploration, expansion of trade routes and colonisation of the Americas; the new technology of printing, which allowed for the rapid dissemination of new ideas and discoveries; and the development of a **humanist** educational programme, based on the study of ancient Greek and Latin authors, and dedicated to the restoration of classical ideals of civic virtue and public service. When Faustus fantasises that ‘All things that move between the quiet poles / Shall be at my command’ (ll. 58–9), his speech is inflected with the scientist's and coloniser's desire for control over the natural world (Hopkins, 2000, p. 62). When he tells Mephistopheles that he is not afraid of damnation because he believes instead in the classical Greek afterlife (see 1.3.60–1), he voices a humanist reverence for classical culture.

It is highly unlikely, though, that any sixteenth-century humanist would have countenanced this kind of explicit challenge to Christian doctrine, so if Faustus represents the secular aspirations of the Renaissance, he does so in an extreme or exaggerated form. Moreover, the fact that *Doctor Faustus* is set in a Christian universe and affirms the reality of hell and damnation should warn us not to overstate the secular values of Renaissance England. Indeed, what the play explores – its principal **theme** – is the conflict between the confidence and ambition its protagonist embodies, and the Christian faith, which remained a powerful cultural force when Marlowe was writing and required humility and submission to God's will. The play's two opening speeches set up an opposition between the Prologue's view of boundless ambition as sinful presumption and Faustus's implicit claim that the Christian universe places unjust restrictions on human potential.

Which side in this conflict do you think the play encourages us to take? We saw earlier that the Prologue seeks to discredit Faustus's interest in necromancy by portraying it in terms of an intemperate appetite. Is there more evidence in the opening scene to support its claim?

The comic scenes

There is no doubt though that the play keeps drawing our attention to its protagonist's weaknesses. The comic scenes in Act 1 serve to reinforce the connection between magic and appetite. In Act 1, Scene 4, Wagner tells us that Robin is so poor that 'he would give his soul to the devil for a shoulder of mutton, though it were blood raw' (ll. 9–11) and Robin adds: 'Not so, good friend. By'r Lady, I had need have it well roasted, and good sauce to it, if I pay so dear' (ll. 12–15). Coming directly after the scene in which Faustus first conjures Mephistopheles, the joke glances at Faustus's own 'hunger' and drives home the absurdly high price he is paying for comparatively trivial pleasures. This is one of the main functions of the play's comic scenes – to comment on the serious action. Time and again, Marlowe juxtaposes scenes so that the later comic one comments on the preceding serious one by representing Faustus's ambitions in their lowest form, stripped of the power of his own speeches. By techniques such as these the play diminishes its hero by exposing the triviality and foolishness of his aims.

Faustus and God

By the end of Act 1, Faustus appears to have made up his mind to sell his soul to the devil in exchange for twenty-four years in which he will 'live in all voluptuousness' (1.3.94). Act 2, Scene 1 opens with another soliloquy.

Faustus appears to be wrestling with his conscience in this soliloquy. He clearly feels the urge to repent, so why doesn't he? It is interesting that although he delivers this speech *before* he has signed his contract with Lucifer, he tells himself in the first line that he must 'needs be damned'; in other words, he sees his own damnation as unavoidable. So what's the point, he asks himself, of thinking of God or heaven? The repetition of the word 'despair' in lines 4

and 5 emphasises Faustus's hopeless state of mind. If you count the syllables in lines 2 and 10, you will see that each line has only six. This means that in performance the actor would have to pause for a moment because the lines are shorter than normal, and this would have the effect of drawing attention to the sentiments expressed in the two lines, that is, to Faustus's despairing conviction that he cannot be saved and that God does not love him.

Why should Faustus feel so strongly that he is damned, when at this point in the play there seems to be every reason to believe that repentance will secure God's forgiveness? Some critics, most notably Alan Sinfield (1983) and John Stachniewski (1991), have argued that Marlowe is exploring the mental and emotional impact of the form of Protestantism that prevailed in England during the late sixteenth century, based on the doctrines of the French-born Protestant reformer Jean Calvin. Calvinist theology developed and changed over time, but at this historical juncture it stressed the sinfulness and depravity of human nature. In contrast to the traditional view of salvation as something that an individual could earn by living a virtuous Christian life, Calvinism argued that salvation is entirely God's gift rather than the result of any human effort. Moreover, according to the doctrine of predestination, God gives that gift only to a fortunate few whom he has chosen; everyone else faces an eternity of hellfire.

This theology formed the official doctrine of the Elizabethan Church. However bleak it sounds, its effect on believers was often positive; for those persuaded by their own virtuous impulses that they were chosen by God, it proved an enormous source of comfort and well-being, perhaps especially for poorer members of society, for whom the conviction of divine favour could be empowering. But for some, these doctrines provoked a sense of powerlessness and anxious fear about their spiritual destiny. It is possible to argue that Marlowe's Faustus is a depiction of one of these casualties of Calvinist doctrine, and that this helps to explain not only his opening dismissal of Christianity as obsessed with sin and

damnation, but his repeated inability to repent. As in the soliloquy that opens Act 2, he cannot bring himself to believe that God favours him and has granted him salvation. The desire for repentance is overwhelmed by a still stronger belief, consistent with Calvinist doctrine in its early modern form, that the chances are that God does not love him at all.

However, it isn't necessary to believe that *Doctor Faustus* is specifically about Calvinism to feel that its portrait of the Christian God who vindictively 'conspires' Faustus's overthrow is not entirely flattering. Numerous critics have been troubled by a particular episode in the play that seems to cast doubt on the presence of divine mercy and benevolence. This is the moment in Act 2, Scene 3 when Faustus makes his most serious attempt at repentance. He quarrels with Mephistopheles, the Good Angel (unusually) gets the last word in the debate with the Evil Angel, and Faustus calls out to Christ 'to save distressed Faustus' soul' (2.3.85). And what happens? Lucifer, Beelzebub and Mephistopheles enter. Why does God not intervene to save Faustus? The stony silence that greets his plea for divine assistance seems to call into question the traditional Christian notion of a loving and merciful God.

Faustus's last soliloquy

The play draws to a close with Faustus's final soliloquy, which is supposed to mark the last hour of his life. Critics have often commented on how skilfully Marlowe uses rhythm to underline the passage of time. Look, for example, at the second line: 'Now hast thou but one bare hour to live' (l. 67). Because this is a sequence of monosyllabic words, it is not entirely clear which of them are stressed. It would certainly be possible for an actor to give a more or less equally strong stress to each word, which is why O'Connor points out that the line seems to echo the striking clock we have just heard (p. 108). This echo effect is strengthened by the internal rhyme between 'Now' and 'thou'. The monosyllabic words continue into the next line until the last word: 'And then thou must be damned perpetually' (l. 68). The sudden

appearance of a long five-syllable word focuses our attention on it and alerts us to what it is that Faustus most fears: an infinity of suffering. This sparks his desperate and futile plea for time to stand still, and Marlowe underlines the futility through the use of **enjambement**, or run-on lines:

Fair nature's eye, rise, rise again, and make

Perpetual day; or let this hour be but

A year, a month, a week, a natural day ... (ll. 71–3)

Faustus wants time to stop or slow down, but the way one line of verse tumbles into the next, accelerating rather than slowing down the rhythm, seems to signal the inevitable frustration of that wish. Faustus himself grasps this: 'The stars move still; time runs; the clock will strike; / The devil will come, and Faustus must be damned' (ll. 76–7).

Time really is the essence of this soliloquy, not only because the clock is ticking for Faustus, but because, as we have seen, what most horrifies him is the prospect not of suffering but of endless suffering. After the clock strikes the half hour, Faustus pleads with God to place a limit on his time in hell – 'Let Faustus live in hell a thousand years, / A hundred thousand, and at last be saved' (ll. 103–04) – only to come back to the awful truth: 'O, no end is limited to damnèd souls' (l. 105).

One of the most striking aspects of the speech is the way it reverses the dreams of power and glory that Faustus expressed in his first soliloquy. In that speech he declared his desire to be more than human, to be a 'mighty god', but now, as he faces an eternity in hell, he wishes that he were less than human: he longs to be transformed into 'some brutish beast' whose soul would simply dissolve into the elements when it dies (ll. 109–12), or that his soul might 'be changed into little water drops, / And fall into the ocean, ne'er be found' (ll. 119–20). In his final soliloquy, Faustus's self-assertive spirit collapses into a desire for extinction; his

aspiration to divinity into a longing for annihilation as he seeks desperately to escape from ‘the heavy wrath of God’ (l. 86).

Morality play or tragedy?

Pity and fear are the emotions that, according to the Greek philosopher Aristotle, are aroused by the experience of watching a tragedy. At the start of this chapter we asked whether *Doctor Faustus* is a late sixteenth-century morality play, designed to teach its audience about the spiritual dangers of excessive learning and ambition. When the play was published, first in 1604 and then in 1616, it was called a ‘tragical history’; if we take ‘history’ here to refer not to a particular dramatic genre but more generally to a narrative or story, then the publisher described the play as a tragic tale. So what is a tragedy? In fact, ‘tragedy’ is a notoriously difficult literary term to define, for it seems to take various forms in different historical periods. But for the sake of discussion, we can fall back on the broad strokes of Aristotle's description (in the *Poetics*) of the tragedies he had seen in Athens in the fourth century BCE: tragedies are plays that represent a central action or plot that is serious and significant. They involve a socially prominent main character who is neither evil nor morally perfect, who moves from a state of happiness to a state of misery because of some frailty or error of judgement: this is the tragic hero, the remarkable individual whose fall stimulates in the spectator intense feelings of pity and fear.

Conclusion

This free course provided an introduction to studying the arts and humanities. It took you through a series of exercises designed to develop your approach to study and learning at a distance and helped to improve your confidence as an independent learner.

William Shakespeare Tragedy in

The Merchant of Venice

The Merchant of Venice by William Shakespeare, believed to have been written between 1596 and 1599, is a compelling play that navigates the intersections of comedy and drama. The story unfolds in the bustling city of Venice, revolving around the anti-Semitic Christian merchant Antonio, who seeks a loan from the Jewish moneylender Shylock to aid his friend Bassanio in pursuing the wealthy Portia. The narrative takes a dramatic turn when Antonio fails to repay the loan, resulting in a legal dispute where Shylock demands a pound of Antonio's flesh as collateral. The play captures the economic and social dynamics of the

time, adding depth to its exploration of themes such as love, justice, and prejudice. Historical context is crucial for understanding Elizabethan attitudes towards Jewish people and the legal intricacies depicted in the play.

Summary

The Merchant of Venice

Antonio, a leading merchant of Venice, is a wealthy, respected, and popular man. Among his many friends is a young man named Bassanio, who owes Antonio a good deal of money. Bassanio would like to repay his friend, but so far he has been unable to do so. However, he now feels that he may have found a way—but he will again need a loan from Antonio. In Belmont, Bassanio tells Antonio, there lives a beautiful and young and wealthy heiress. Bassanio feels sure that he can win her hand in marriage, but he cannot go courting "hands-hanging." If he is to make a good impression, he has to appear at least as well off as her other wealthy suitors. Antonio tells his young friend that he would gladly lend him whatever amount of money he needs, but at the present time he himself is short of cash. All of his money is tied up in his merchant ships, which are still at sea. However, Antonio will not disappoint Bassanio. He knows of a moneylender who will probably lend him the necessary amount, and Bassanio can use Antonio's good name as security for the loan. At Belmont, Portia speaks to Nerissa, her confidante, telling her how tired she is of the constant stream of suitors, and how she wishes to be free of the perverse obligation of her father's will: Portia cannot choose her own husband; she can marry only the man who chooses the correct one of three caskets—one gold, one silver, and one lead; one contains her portrait and that one is the lucky casket. So far, none of her suitors has decided to risk choosing one of the caskets, which is all for the good, because Portia has no liking for any of them. However, when Nerissa mentions the name of Bassanio, a possible suitor, Portia's mood brightens. He

was once a visitor at Belmont, and Portia was impressed with him. Meanwhile in Venice, Shylock, a rich Jewish moneylender who harbors a secret hatred for Antonio, has agreed to lend Bassanio three thousand ducats for three months, on Antonio's bond. Foregoing his usual high interest rate, Shylock demands instead that if the day for payment falls due and the money is not returned, he may cut off one pound of flesh from Antonio's body. Antonio agrees because all of his ships are due back in Venice a full month before the bond falls due. A romantic subplot develops when Lorenzo, a close friend of Antonio and Bassanio, falls in love with Shylock's daughter, Jessica. He manages to elope with her by disguising her as a boy, and she manages to take with her a goodly amount of her father's ducats. Of course, this infuriates Shylock, and he vows revenge. Shortly thereafter, Bassanio and Gratiano leave for Belmont, where the "fair Portia" has just sent away the Prince of Morocco and the Prince of Arragon, two more disappointed, unsuccessful suitors. When Bassanio asks to choose one of the caskets, Portia falls immediately in love with him, and she begs him to wait a few days before choosing one of the caskets. He has fallen in love with Portia and insists on taking his chances. He rejects the gold one, then the silver one; he chooses, finally, the lead casket, and on opening it, he finds a portrait of Portia. Both he and Portia are overjoyed, and they make plans to be married at once, along with Nerissa and Gratiano, who have also fallen in love. Happiness reigns in Belmont until Bassanio is brought a letter from Antonio bidding him farewell since his ships have been lost at sea and since it is impossible that he will live after Shylock collects his pound of flesh. Horrified, Bassanio leaves instantly for Venice with money which Portia gives him to pay the bond. In Venice, Shylock is no longer interested in the mere payment of the money due him. He wants revenge. A Christian stole his daughter (and she took his money), and nothing will satisfy Shylock except the legal fulfillment of the bond. In the court of justice, presided over by the Duke of Venice, Shylock faces his enemy, Antonio. Antonio is surrounded by his friends and is quietly resigned to death. On all sides,

Shylock is surrounded by enemies. Bassanio pleads with Shylock to accept double the money due him, but Shylock refuses. ² At this point, Portia, disguised as a lawyer, and Nerissa, dressed as her law clerk, enter the court and tell the Duke that they have been sent from Padua by a learned attorney, Doctor Bellario, to plead the defendant's case. Portia entreats Shylock to be merciful, but he will not listen. She offers the moneylender triple the amount owed him, but again Shylock will have none of it. She then solemnly informs the court that Shylock is entirely within his lawful rights. She then informs Shylock that he must be very careful. He must cut off exactly one pound of flesh, and he must not spill one drop of Antonio's blood. If he fails, all of Shylock's lands and goods will be confiscated. Shylock hastily decides that he will accept the triple payment of the bond, but Portia says no; Shylock then offers to take only the original three thousand ducats, but again Portia refuses, reminding him that it was he himself who demanded the strict interpretation of the law. Furthermore, she says, the law has another hold on him. Since he is an alien in Venice and since he tried to "seek the life" of a Venetian citizen, all his wealth can be divided between the citizen whom he attempted to destroy and the public treasury; in addition, Shylock's own life is in peril because of what he attempted to do. The Duke decides to spare Shylock's life, but he does give half of Shylock's money to Antonio, and he gives the rest of it to the state. Antonio says that he will not accept the money if Shylock will agree to become a Christian and if, in his will, he will agree to leave his money to his daughter, Jessica, and her new husband, Lorenzo. Shylock, broken and defeated, agrees to all these conditions and leaves the court. Overjoyed, Antonio and his friends offer to pay the young lawyer whatever they can, but, oddly enough, the lawyer wishes only a certain ring which Bassanio is wearing. Bassanio is embarrassed because his wife gave this ring to him and asked him to wear it always. But the lawyer insists and, finally, Bassanio reluctantly gives away Portia's ring. Nerissa likewise cleverly manages to get from Gratiano a ring she gave him. The two ladies then hasten back to Belmont to tease

their husbands about the rings. When Bassanio and Gratiano, along with Antonio, return to Belmont, their wives inquire about the missing rings. Portia and Nerissa insist that the men no doubt gave the rings away to two other women. The husbands swear that it is not true, and it is not until Portia and Nerissa have put their husbands through some long, comically agonizing moments of discomfort that they confess that they themselves were the "learned doctor" and the "clerk" to whom the rings were given. Thus all ends happily, as Portia gives Antonio a letter informing him that three of his ships have arrived safely in port.

Unit III

Restoration Drama

John Dryden- All for Love

Introduction

"All For Love" is a heroic tragedy written by the greatest poet and playwright John Dryden. It was written in 1677 in blank verse. This play is an imitation of William Shakespeare's play 'Antony And Cleopatra', set in the last days of their lives. But like Shakespeare's play, it is not based on the political intrigue of Rome and Egypt but as the title

suggests, 'All For Love'. It is based on the tragic love affair between Mark Antony the Roman General and Cleopatra, the Egyptian Queen. It tells us about tragic Love, Honour, political power and the consequences of uncontrolled passion.

About John Dryden

John Dryden was an English poet, literary critic, translator and playwright. He largely John Dryden was an English poet, literary critic, translator and playwright. He largely dominated the literary world of Restoration English and became England's 2nd poet Laureate in 1668. Dryden is credited with establishing the heroic couplet as a standard form of English poetry by writing successful satires, religious pieces, fables, epigrams, compliments prologues and playing with it. Among his world- famous works include- Absalom and Achitophel, Mac Flecknoe and The Medall.

Character List of All For Love

Antony - A Middle-aged Roman general who rules the Roman Empire along with Lepidus and Octavius Caesar. He is torn between his desire for Cleopatra and the demands of his position as a world ruler.

Cleopatra - She is the Queen of Egypt and the lover of Antony. She is a woman of beauty and intelligence

Octavius Caesar - The adopted son of Julius Caesar. He is determined to ultimately be the

Ventidius - He is a general in the Roman army and one of Antony's close friends. He also likes Cleopatra.

Octavia - Antony's wife and Octavius's sister. Antony abandons her for Cleopatra

Alexas - He is Cleopatra's servant and one of her advisors.

Serapion - Serapion is one of the priests of the Temple of Isis. There are also many minor Characters in the play

Iras - Cleopatra's Maid Myris - Another Priest of Temple. Agrippina & Antonia - Antony's young daughter.

Charmion - Cleopatra's maid.

Lepidus - Mediator between Antony & Caesar

Summary & Analysis of Play

The play opens with the two priests, Serapion and Myris, who are worried for the future of their Kingdom. It is because Antony and Cleopatra have recently lost the battle of Actium to Octavius. In the meantime, General Ventidius arrives to console Antony. He is Antony's Old General and a Roman Soldier. He is the true well-wisher of Antony. He informs Antony that the Syrian Army is ready to support him with the condition that he must leave Cleopatra. At first, Antony refuses to follow his suggestion but finally, he agrees to leave Egypt but not Cleopatra.

Alexas informs Cleopatra about the discussion between Antony and Ventidius. The discussion between Antony and Ventidius. He also tells her about their plan to leave Egypt. Cleopatra becomes hurt. She asks Alexas to go to Antony and convince him to visit Cleopatra. Meanwhile, Antony and Ventidius have now agreed to be together. When they are laughing at the cowardice of Octavius Caesar, Alexas enters and tells Antony that Cleopatra has sent some gifts as a token of her love for Antony.

Alexas requests Antony to visit her once before leaving. Antony accepts the gifts. Ventidius stop him from meeting Cleopatra but Antony does not listen to him. The meeting takes place. The mutual conversation starts when Cleopatra says that she would die if she left her. Antony replies that he can never leave a woman who loves him so deeply. He tells Ventidius that he does not need to support of the Syrian Army. At this, Ventidius become annoyed and goes away saying.

*“O Women! Women! All the gods
Have not such power of doing good
To man as you of doing harm.”*

Once again, Ventidius comes to Antony and tells them that Octavius Ceasar has raised a Strong Army. At this, Antony informs Ventidius that he knows a novel and brave Soldier named Dolabella. He is now in the army of Octavius. The reason behind the bitterness of their relationship is that once in the past her confessed his love for Cleopatra. Ventidius bring Dolabella back and Antony reconciles with him. Ventidius and Dolabella remind Antony of his wife Octavia and bring Octavia and two daughters before Antony. Antony is moved when he unites with his daughters. He decides to leave Cleopatra. Meanwhile, Cleopatra receives the news of reconciliation between Antony and Octavia. She becomes disheartened and furious. Cleopatra realizes that she will lose Antony. Antony is ready to leave Egypt. He persuades Dolabella to bid goodbye to Cleopatra. He lacks the courage to do so. When Dolabella sees Cleopatra, he confesses his love for her. In the course of the conversation, Dolabella lies to her by saying that Antony used hard words for her. Cleopatra faints upon hearing this. Dolabella becomes nervous and says her the truth. Octavia and Ventidius overhear them. They assume that they have fallen in love. They inform Antony about this. Antony is enraged by hearing about their love connection.

A little later, Dolabella and Cleopatra enter. They are unaware of the situation. Antony blames both of them for being deceitful. They protest but Antony dominates. Antony weeps at this separation. Cleopatra blames Alexas for bringing her to such a situation. She pulls out a dagger to kill herself. But Serapian prevents her from doing so. To prove Cleopatra's innocence Alexas goes to Antony and tells him that Cleopatra has committed suicide. Antony recognizes Cleopatra's innocence and feels that the world is useless for him without her. He asks Ventidius to kill him. But Ventidius instead kills himself. Antony falls on his sword and gets badly wounded but is still alive. Meanwhile, Cleopatra comes to know about what Alexas told Antony. She rushed into the room and found him lying on the ground. Antony is about to die. In such an hour of despair, Antony and Cleopatra reconcile. Antony dies in her lap. Just before his death, she promises him to join him very soon. She royally dresses herself. She orders her maid to bring a poisonous asp. She lets the asp sting her and finally dies beside Antony. After seeing their bodies Priests remark that both of them will unite in heaven.

Egypt is conquered by Caesar and the play ends with the tragic death of Antony and Cleopatra.

Themes of All for Love:

John Dryden's 'All For Love' is a tragedy that retells the story of Antony and Cleopatra. The play deals with themes such as tragic love, honour political power and the consequences of uncontrollable passion.

Love

In the play, Antony claims to love Cleopatra. In fact, he has abandoned his wife, Octavia and their children to live with Cleopatra in Egypt. He clearly does not love his family. Now we wonder if he loves Cleopatra their relationship is more about lust than love. When Octavia's brother, Octavius Caesar threatens to attack Alexandria because of Antony's disloyalty,

Antony starts to mope and distance herself from Cleopatra. His "Love" quickly falls away when he becomes distracted from his lust.

Antony further reveals his lack of love for Cleopatra when Ventidius tempts Antony to fight Octavius. Cleopatra seems to have a better grasp of Love than Antony. Octavius tempts her to betray Antony, but she declines. Antony always blamed her for all their problems, whining that he would be safe in Rome if he hadn't fallen in love with her and even questioning her devotion by reminding her that she had once been Octavius's mistress. Cleopatra potentially puts up with Antony's Sulky complaining and the two make up.

On the other hand, Antony's wife knows that Antony does not love her, but he is still her husband and she wants to be with her and their Children. She almost succeeds in convincing Antony to return to Rome.

Passion

Perhaps the most important theme in the play and what keeps Cleopatra and Antony in a magnetic pull towards one another the entire time, is passion. Both of the lovers fell passionately - in both a sexual and romantic sense - towards one another. The passion they feel for one another exceeds all reason, and it is what keeps Cleopatra and Antony continually making poor decisions. Whenever Antony is on the brink of leaving Egypt once and for all, he is once again called back by his passion for Cleopatra. Likewise in the end, after Antony has died, Cleopatra determines that she would rather die than live under Caesar. She chooses death over life because of her passionate love for Antony.

Power

The play concerns two influential leaders, Antony, A Roman leader, and Cleopatra, the queen of Egypt. Both of these rulers wield a tremendous amount of Power, but when the play opens, their power falters as a result of their affair.

All For Love as a Heroic Tragedy

A heroic tragedy is a type of play prevalent in Restoration England during the 1660 and 1670. John Dryden is certainly the best and probably the first of the restoration heroic tragedy play writer. His play 'All for Love' followed all the rules of heroic tragedy. Such As- It is characteristic of a heroic play that the hero is placed in conflict between his love and honour. Throughout the play "All For Love", Antony wrestles with the conflict between his love for Cleopatra and his duties to the Roman Empire. In Act 1, he engages Cleopatra in conversation about the nature and depth of their love. Neglects his duties towards Rome.

“Let Rome in Tiber melt, and the wife arch of the raged empire fall.”

For being a successful tragedy, an unbeaten tragic hero is needed. Antony is the tragic hero who is a person of noble birth with heroic qualities. But he is fated to doom and destruction. He shirks his political duty for the sake of his love relationship with Cleopatra. His peers deem Antony's actions to be irresponsible and believe they will be the cause of his downfall.

Dryden says in the preface of the play 'All for Love' that “In my style, I have professed to imitate the divine Shakespeare, which that I might perform more freely, I have disencumbered myself from rhyme.” He gave up the heroic couplet of his early plays and accepted the blank verse to give an elevated style in Shakespeare's manner. His handling of the blank verse in the play is surely skilful.

In this preface to 'All For Love' Dryden explains his view that the love between Antony and Cleopatra is an "Illegal Love" based on "Vice". Therefore the plot fails to attain its moral aim. Heroic tragedy contains the fall of a great emperor because of the Character flaw of

heroes. In Dryden's tragedy, Antony largely loses his major confrontation with Octavius. When he meets Ventidius, his trusted general, he weeps over the reality that she destroyed much of the Roman Empire because of his love for Cleopatra. In Cleopatra's portrayal too Dryden displays the characteristic of the heroic play. Nowhere in the play, not even when she is banished, has she deviated from her steadfast love for Antony.

She considers her love so sacred. Such a portrayal of the heroine of perfection is found only in heroic plays. Ending with death is the most important feature of a tragedy. "All For Love" ends with the death of the hero and heroine fulfilling this convention of tragedy. Altogether 2ve people commit suicide in the last act of the play - Antony Cleopatra, Ventidius and two maids. All of them do this for their affection with regard to someone. These are some characteristics of heroic tragedy, which we can 2nd in the play "All For Love".

Conclusion Thus, the title play "All For Love" signifies a deep and selfless commitment to love. It suggests that the characters in the story are willing to do anything for the sake of love, even if it means sacrificing their well-being or happiness. Overall, 'All For Love' is a tragic play that explores the complexities of love, loyalty and duty. The final words of the play suggest that true love is beyond all values.

Unit IV

Indian Drama Girish Karnad Hayavadana

Structure

Objectives

Introduction

Modern Indian Drama and Girish Karnad

Hayavadana: Sources and Plot

Analysis

Production History

OBJECTIVES

- Have a sense of the complete oeuvre of Girish Karnad.
- Situate Girish Karnad as a playwright in the broader framework of Modern Indian Drama.
- Understand the genesis of Karnad's plays Hayavadana and Naga-Mandala.
- Analyse Karnad's plays Hayavadana and Naga-Mandala.
- Appreciate Karnad's engagement with myth, history and folktale.
- Negotiate and problematize the themes and concerns of his age.

INTRODUCTION

An Indian playwright of repute, recipient of Padma Bhushan and Jnanpith Award, Girish Raghunath Karnad is not only known to people associated with drama and theatre studies but also to the cinema goers as an actor and director. His career as a dramatist has been paralleled by an equally celebrated career as an actor, screenwriter, director and administrator. Despite a many-sided engagement with the media of theatre, film, television, and a larger-than-life presence in the public realm, Karnad has maintained an exceptional separation and balance between his contribution to “high”, “popular” and “official” culture and thus as a public figure Karnad has been – to use an Americanism – a ‘celebrity’ for almost five decades now. Born in 1938 in Matheran, near Mumbai and educated at Sirsi and Dharwad in Karnataka, Mumbai and Oxford (where he went as a Rhodes scholar, 1960-63), he found his interest shifting from science to literature. Although initially he had ambitions of becoming a poet in English, he eventually discovered his penchant for drama. On his return, he worked at the Madras (now Chennai) branch of Oxford University Press till 1970, a period when he acted and directed English Theatre for the Madras Players. During his early years, Karnad witnessed the performances of western plays by the British troupes in the metro cities like

Madras, Mumbai, and New Delhi & Kolkata. Amidst this along with the fading phase of Parsi Theatre¹ on the regional professional form in Karnataka, popularly known as Company Nataka, Karnad chose to assimilate relevant aspects of Western and Indian, Classical Sanskrit and Folk theatre. At the time, when Indian amateur drama was at its lowest ebb especially in Karnataka, he provided a fillip to Kannada Theatre, as well as National Theatre. Girish Karnad is the creator of Modern Indian Drama along with Badal Sircar³ in Bengali, Vijay Tendulkar⁴ in Marathi and Mohan Rakesh⁵ in Hindi. His rise as a playwright in 1960s marked the coming of age of Modern Indian playwriting in Kannada. In the second half of the twentieth century, this was the generation of writers who had contoured the modern Indian theatre and it would not be out of place to mention here that the golden period of theatre in 1970s in India was made possible by the kind responsibility these playwrights had taken onto themselves.

Karnad made his playwriting debut with reworking of a tale from Mahabharata called Yayati (1961; all dates indicate publication). Tughlaq (1964) - believed to be inspired by Albert Camus' Caligula - shot him to fame as it made history contemporaneous by reading the dilemmas of Nehruvian era through Mohammad Bin Tughlaq, the Turkic Sultan of Delhi from 1325 to 1351. Directed by Ebrahim Alkazi⁶, Tughlaq was performed by the National School of Drama Repertory Company in the ruins of Purana Qila in New Delhi as backdrop before it was invited to London as a part of the festival of India in 1982. The source of his third play Hayavadana or Horse-Head (1971) comes from a Sanskrit text Vetala Panchavimsati⁷ and Somdeva's Brihat Kathasaritsagara, retold by Thomas Mann in The Transposed Heads, of the dichotomy between mind and body, and the problems of completeness basically relate the same tale of the transposition of heads. This play used folk elements extensively like masks and the supernatural.

MODERN INDIAN DRAMA & GIRISH KARNAD

Quite often, scholars identify playwrights such as Vijay Tendulkar in Marathi, Badal Sircar in Bengali, Mohan Rakesh in Hindi and Girish Karnad in Kannada as the makers of modern dramatic literature in India, but the genesis of modern Indian drama needs to be mapped in the colonial encounter that eventually resulted in the influence of Western and European models on local theatrical traditions. British theatre formed part of cultural life as early as 1757 when Bengal came under the rule of East India Company, saw a proliferation of playhouses, prominent among them being the Calcutta Theatre (built in 1775), Chowringhee Theatre (built in 1813) and the Sans Souci Theatre (opened in 1839), which flourished under the patronage of colonial officials.

Initially restricted to sahibs and memsahibs (British men and women respectively, as referred by Indians), theatrical activity spread among the local literati and men of wealth who began staging European plays at local theatre, schools and colleges and by the late nineteenth century, resulted in the emergence of a stream of urban drama that was influenced by Anglo-European traditions. Even though it remained the not-so-popular aesthetic form as compared to the novel and poetry, by the late nineteenth century, theatre had developed into a broad-based entertainment in urban centres such as Calcutta, Madras and Bombay and attracted the largest middle class audience.

HAYAVADANA

In his 'Note' to Hayavadana, Karnad unambiguously states: The central episode in the play, the story of Devadatta and Kapila is based on a tale from the Kathasaritsagara, but I have drawn heavily on Thomas Mann's reworking of the tale in *The Transposed Heads* ... (Collected Plays Girish Karnad Volume 1, p 102) Kathasaritsagara, literally "an ocean of stories", is an ancient collection of stories in Sanskrit about Indian legends, fairy tales and

folk tales as retold in Sanskrit by a Shaiva named Somadeva. Written in a poorly-understood language known as Paisachi, Kathasaritsagara is said to have been adapted. For the analysis of both the plays, I have heavily drawn upon “Introduction” in the “Collected Plays Volume One: Girish Karnad” by Aparna Bhargava Dharwadker. Most of the content is compiled and assembled from the same essay. From Gunandhya’s Brihatkatha. The Transposed Heads is Thomas Mann’s philosophical version of an Indian legend about the conflict between mind and body.

Vetala Panchavimsati also narrates the similar tale. Vetala Panchavimsati and Somdeva’s Brihat Kathasaritsagara articulate the same tale of the transposition of heads, only except certain characters and places have been given fresh names in the latter. In both these works, the story runs thus: In a temple in the city of Shobhavati, through the favour of Goddess Gauri, Prince Dhavala marries Madanasundari, the daughter of the king named Suddapata. Svetapatta, Suddhapata’s son, one day proceeds to his own country along with his sister and her husband. On the way they come across another temple of Goddess Gauri. Dhavala goes into the temple to pay homage to the Goddess. There he happens to see a sword, gets obsessed to offer his head to the goddess and does the same. When he does not return for long, Svetapatta enters the temple and gets stunned to see Dhavala dead and his head presented to Goddess Gauri. Through some irresistible urge he also cuts off his head and presents it to the Goddess. After waiting for a long time for her husband and her brother, Madanasundari goes in to beg something of her. She requests the Goddess to restore her husband and her brother. Hearing this Goddess Gauri asks her to set their heads on their shoulders. But out of excitement Madanasundari puts the head of her husband on the body of her brother and that of her brother on the body of her husband. Both of them come back to life as such. Madanasundari then realizes her mistake, but what has been done cannot be undone. At this stage Vetala asks Vikram, ‘Who is Madanasundari’s husband, the man with

her husband's head, or the man with her husband's body?' The King's reply is that the person with Dhavala's head on his shoulders is the husband.

In the 'Vetala story' the problem seems to have been solved thus, but in Karnad's Hayavadana, the problem begins from this point. The same story has been retold by Thomas Mann in The Transposed Heads, which Karnad revives to create his Hayavadana. The Transposed Heads is about Shridaman and Nanda who are very intimate friends. The former is a Brahmin by birth and the latter is a cow-herd and blacksmith. Shridhaman falls in love with Sita whom he happens to see when he and Nanda are travelling together. He asks Nanda to act as a messenger between him and Sita. First, he laughs at the idea, but for his friend Nanda agrees to do so. Sita consents to the proposal and marries Shridaman. After sometime, when the couple, accompanied by Nanda, travel through the forests so as to reach the house of Sita's parents, lose track. Finding a temple of Kali they take shelter for the night.

Shridaman goes into the temple, sees the Goddess and under some uncanny influences cuts off his head and offers it to Kali. Waiting long for Shridaman's return Nanda goes in search of his friend, goes into the same temple and finds him dead. Out of fear of being accused with the murder of his friend for the sake of Sita whom he also loves, Nanda kills himself too. When Sita finds both Shridaman and Nanda missing, she reaches the inside of the temple, sees the situation and prepares to put an end to her life. Preventing her from doing so, Goddess Kali appears before her and asks her to beg what she wants. Sita demands.

to fix the heads on their bodies. Sita out of her excitement puts the head of Shridaman on the body of Nanda and that of Nanda's on Shridaman. Both of them are restored to life to create a great problem to Sita to decide who her husband is: the man with Shridaman's head or the one with his body? They seek the advice of sage Kandaman who gives the verdict in favour of Shridaman's head. The man with Nanda's head and Shridaman's body becomes a hermit.

Shridaman and Sita live together and she gives birth to a boy baby and named Andhak. After some times Sita suddenly decides to see Nanda, and she, taking her son, reaches Nanda. She spends the day and the night in his company. The next morning Shridaman reaches the place where Sita and Nanda are enjoying heavenly bliss. He challenges Nanda. They fight and kill each other. Sita performs 'Sati' on the funeral pyre of her husband and her friend, Andhak is left behind with improved social recognition as Sati's son.

In Hayavadana, Karnad projects the story of the transposition of heads through characters with different names and identities. The sub -plot of Hayavadana (Horse Head or The One With A Horse' Head) is purely his own invention which adds to the total impression and significance of the play. Kirtinath Kurtkoti in his "Introduction" to Hayavadana proposes, The sub-plot of Hayavadana, the horse-man, deepens the significance of the main theme of incompleteness by treating it on a different plane. The horse-man's search for completeness ends comically, with his becoming a complete horse. The animal body triumphs over what is considered to be best in man, 'the uttamanga', and the human head (102).

Analysis

While holding while discussing the folk elements in traditional Indian Theatre vis-à-vis Hayavadana in the Introduction of Three Plays, Karnad shares, "The story initially interested me for the scope it gave for the use of mask and music. Western Theatre has developed a contrast between the face and the mask – the real inner person and the exterior one presents, or wishes to present, to the world outside. But in traditional Indian theatre, the mask is only the face 'writ large'; since a character represents not a complex psychological entity but an ethical archetype; the mask merely presents in enlarged detail its essential moral nature. (This is why characters in Hayavadana have no real names. The heroine is called Padmini after one of the six types into which Vatsyayana classified all women. Her husband is Devadatta, a

formal mode of addressing a stranger. His friend is Kapila, simply the ‘dark one’.) Music – usually percussion – then further distances the action, placing it in the realm of the mythical and the elemental.” Having explored the genres of mythic-existential and historical drama in *Yayati* and *Tughlaq*, Karnad’s third play *Hayavadana* (1971) marked another major change of direction, not only in his playwriting but in post-independence theatre as a whole because it was the first work to translate into notable practice the debate over the usefulness of indigenous performing genres in the development of a new, quintessentially ‘Indian’ theatre.

the prestigious Homi Bhabha Fellowship for creative work in folk theatre, the endless argument about revitalizing traditional forms led him to question the relationship of a city dweller like him with the entire paraphernalia of theatrical device, half curtains, masks, improvisations, music and mine. I remember that the idea of my play *Hayavadana* started crystallizing in my head right in the middle of an argument with B.V. Karanth...about the meaning of masks in Indian theatre and theatre’s relationship to music. (Three Plays 12)

The story about switched heads in the twelfth-century Sanskrit collection, *Kathasaritasagara*, interested him initially because of the possibilities it offered for the use of masks on stage. However, refracted through Thomas Mann’s philosophical novella *The Transposed Heads*, Karnad’s distinctive view of femininity and a reflexive double frame, the traditional conventions underwent a process of defamiliarization in *Hayavadana* that produced a genuinely original work for the urban Indian stage, and created a unique intellectual and theatrical experience throughout the decade of the 1970s. In keeping with Karnad’s interest in a usable ‘structure of expectations’, the outstanding quality of *Hayavadana* as an ‘urban folk’ play is that it joins the conventions of *Yakshagana* folk performance (stock characters, music, dance, masks, talking dolls, et al) with a core narrative that poses philosophical riddles about the nature of identity and reality. In the *Kathasaritasagara*, the story of ‘The Heads That Got Switched’ contains a simple riddle. The resulting problem of ‘true’ identity has an ambiguous

solution in this version: The one with her husband's head is her husband because the head rules the limbs and personal identity depends on the head. In the mythic genealogy of caste, first offered in the Purusha-sukta in the Rg-veda (Book 10, hymn 90) around 1000BC, Brahmans emerged from Purusha's head, and the supremacy of that part of the body is so firmly established in the subsequent Hindu tradition that it overrides the implications of incest in the twelfth-century narrative (in the case of Madanasundari, it's the brother and the husband and in some versions of the story, however the second male is a friend, rather than the woman's brother). The elements of characterization and the order of the events in Mann's novella closely enough to be considered, in some respects, a 'de-orientalised' contemporary Indian theatrical version of it. The play's real originality lies in the reflexive frames Karnad constructs for the story, and the thematic force of its representation of femininity, desire, and identity in and for the present, independent of its sources. Karnad's first radical move is to multiply the contexts in which the problem of incongruity, as symbolized by the disjunction between head and body, appears. In the human world of Devadatta and Kapila, transposition offers a symbolic but temporary resolution to the problem of mind/body dualism: for a brief period of time, Devadatta-Kapila possesses the ideal mind as well as the ideal body, while the other hybrid being, Kapila-Devadatta, is deficient in both respects. But when each man's body reverts to its original qualities, the problem of dualism return and the human condition appears as essentially one of the disunity and imperfection culminating in death. Karnad diffuses this human 'tragedy' by placing it alongside two other realms of experience-the divine and the animal. Despite his comical appearance, the elephant-headed, pot-bellied Ganesha is the patron deity of scribes and performers, the removers of obstacles (vigneshwara), and the god of all auspicious beginnings- an embodiment of both divinity and perfection. On the other hand, Hayavadana, the horse-headed man who gives the play its title, lacks any vestige of divinity and appears painfully suspended between the animal and human

worlds. Unlike the god, Hayavadana cannot endure to remain mixed up; unlike the humans, he does not possess a prior self that can reassert itself.

But as in the human world, the head determines identity, even if that means the triumph of the animal over the human: Hayavadana achieves wholeness by relinquishing his human characteristics, and turning completely into a horse. This triple perspective on disrupted selves puts into practice Karnad's belief that the various conventions of Indian folk theatre create effects similar to those associated with Brecht's notion of 'complex 'the chorus, the masks, the seemingly unrelated comic episodes, the mixing of human and nonhuman worlds permit the simultaneous presentation of alternative points of view, of alternative attitudes of the central problem' (Three Plays, p14). The second level of complication in Hayavadana involves the author's self-conscious manipulation of the structure of folk performance. While the action of folk theatre moves between a frame and the inner play, in Hayavadana there are two outer frames, both belonging to the historical present, which intersect unpredictably with each other and with the action of the inner play. The first frame consists of Bhagvata, the female chorus, and the two male actors who are not merely characters in a folk performance but performers in a provincial troupe preparing to enact the story of Padmini and her two husbands for a contemporary audience. Just as the action of the inner play is about to begin, the performance is disrupted by the appearance of Hayavadana, the talking horse who wants a solution to his own predicament. The disruption forces the characters of folk drama to revert to their 'real' personae as actors, and the performance of Padmini story begins only after the Bhagvata has persuaded Hayavadana to leave and seek divine intervention for the solution of his problem. Similarly, the end of Padmini's story is not the end of the play: the two framing narratives continue until Hayavadana, who now appears as a horse with the human voice, has lost - as he wants to - this last --human attribute. The conventional folk structure of the play within-a-play is therefore yoked in Hayavadana to a reflexive rehearsal format, whose

function is to subject the defining conventions of folk performance to ironic scrutiny. Beyond its philosophical reflection on identity and its self-reflexive structure, Hayavadana also resonates in present dramatic and cultural contexts because it gives primacy to women in the psychosexual relations of marriage, and creates a space for the expression, even the fulfilment of amoral female desire within the constraints of patriarchy. In this respect, the genre of 'urban folk' theatre to which both Hayavadana and Naga-Mandala belong offers a radical contrast to the representation of women in the 'urban realist' drama of such playwrights as Mohan Rakesh, Vijay Tendulkar, the early Badal Sircar, Mahesh Elkunchwar⁹, Jaywant Dalvi¹⁰ And Mahesh Dattani¹¹. The essential basis of difference here is not the gender of author, which continues to be exclusively male (Karnad, Kambar¹², Tanvir¹³, Panikkar¹⁴, Thiyam¹⁵), but the qualitatively different attitudes to gender that emerge within the plays when male authors move out of the urban social realist mode into the anti-modern, anti-realistic, charismatic realm of folk culture.

Sources and Plot

Naga-Mandala (1988), which came seventeen years after Hayavadana, can be considered a companion play because it creates variations on many of the same themes. Written in 1987-88 during Karnad's residency as a Fulbright fellow at the University of Chicago, the play combines another reflexive frame – this time about a fictional playwright who can continue to live only if he keeps awake for the whole night – with two oral tales that Karnad had heard several years earlier from his friend and mentor, A.K. Ramanujan²³. The first story, about the lamp flames that gather in a village temple to exchange gossip about the households they inhabit, is part of the outer play and gives imaginative expression to the idea of community life. The second story, about the woman who was visited by a king cobra in the

form of her husband, is personified in the play as a beautiful young woman in a sari, and it ‘tells itself’ (as the inner play) to the audience composed of the playwright and the flames.

Plays such as Hayavadana and Naga-Mandala (as well as Kambar’s Jokumaraswami¹⁶ and Tanvir’s Charandas Chor¹⁷) are important in the discourse of gender because they embody several principles largely absent in realist drama. magical elements creates a synthesis that is thematically and philosophically simpler than the polysemy²⁴ of Hayavadana; it allows for innovative staging and rich visual effects, but appeals more to the fancy than the imagination.

For the analysis of both the plays, I have heavily drawn upon “Introduction” in the “Collected Plays Volume One: Girish Karnad” by Aparna Bhargava Dharwadker. Most of the content is compiled and assembled from the same essay.

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